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1. Introduction

Optical coherence tomography angiography (OCTA) is an extension of OCT that visualizes vascular perfusion using the motion contrast from red blood cells (RBCs). Over the years, OCTA has demonstrated widespread acceptance and use for clinical evaluations of vascular features in relation to disease [1]. OCT angiograms can be used to evaluate characteristics on the scale of vascular layers by measuring vascular density or non-perfusion zones, or it can be used to examine individual vessels with measurements of diameter or tortuosity. Nevertheless, OCT is prone to certain artifacts which specifically affect visualization of the vasculature. These artifacts may lead to underestimations of measurements of vessel diameter and density. When viewed in cross-section, large vessels often demonstrate an hourglass appearance with stronger scattering in the center than at the sides (Figure 1A). This appearance is due to orientation effects of RBCs, which align with the blood flow, causing a reduced scattering cross-section at the sides of the vessels. To compensate for these artifacts, OCT contrast agents such as Intralipid have previously been used to increase intravascular intensity signals, particularly in regions where RBC scattering is diminished. Here we examine different methods of measuring vessel size from in vivo OCT scans of mouse retinal vasculature, and we use a contrast agent to obtain ground truth vessel diameter measurements for comparison. We finally propose ways of mitigating or correcting for underestimations of vessel diameter related to typical OCT artifacts.

Optical coherence tomography (OCT) is a non-invasive optical imaging method, which uses interferometry to measure the transit time of light that is backscattered from a sample. OCT has found widespread clinical use in ophthalmology with XXX number of systems and XXX OCT scans performed annually around the world. OCT angiography (OCTA) is a functional extension of OCT which highlights motion between repeated OCT scans to generate images of vascular networks. Typically, OCTA signals are first calculated from the OCT intensity and/or phase information, segmented in 3D manually, algorithmically, or using a deep learning approach, and finally compressed into a 2D image using a maximum intensity projection. These 2D vascular maps can then be binarised by using a global or adaptive threshold, and finally vascular metrics

such as vessel density and diameter can be computed. Of these processing stages, the thresholding step is perhaps the most important. There are dozens of different thresholding methods that have been proposed over the years and each of these may produce different results in the binary map, which would in turn influence the quantification of vascular metrics. In this work, we examine an alternate approach for extracting quantitative vessel diameter by fitting a model to the OCTA data before binarisation to avoid thresholding-based effects.

In addition to thresholding-based variability, we hypothesize that OCTA metrics are also affected by OCT artifacts caused by the non-uniform backscattering profiles of red blood cells (RBCs). Because RBCs have a distinct bi-concave disc shape, they more effectively backscatter light when aligned perpendicular to the beam, rather than parallel to it. It has already been observed that in large vessels, a so-called hourglass artifact appears when viewed cross-sectionally. This is caused by the alignment of the RBCs with the vessel walls while under laminar flow, where the RBCs are perpendicular to the beam in the center of the vessels and parallel to the beam at the edges of the vessels. This artifact artificially suppresses the OCT and OCTA signals at the edges of the vessels, making them appear more narrow when projected into an en-face view, which is the preferred way of displaying angiographic data. Here we use contrast enhanced OCT (CE-OCT) to investigate how significant these effects are and how they can be corrected.

2. Methods and Materials

2.1. Imaging system

All imaging was performed using a custom-built polarisation-sensitive spectral-domain OCT ophthalmoscope, described in detail previously [2]. The system was centred at 840 nm with a spectral bandwidth of 100 nm at full width half maximum (FWHM), providing an axial resolution of approximately 5.1 μm in air and 3.8 μm in tissue (assuming a refractive index of 1.35). A sensitivity of 96 dB was achieved at an A-scan rate of 80 kHz and a beam diameter of 0.5 mm at the pupil plane (power at cornea = 2.85 mW) [3]. This system was employed to acquire volumetric OCT data from mouse retinas before, during, and after an intravascular contrast agent administration, as well as before and after functional stimulation of the mouse retina using a custom 502 nm light-emitting diode (LED) ring flashing at 10 Hz (power at cornea = 26.6 μW). This wavelength was selected to target the peak absorption of mouse rhodopsin (~500 nm), enabling predominantly rod-driven photoreceptor stimulation [4].

2.2. Experimental protocol

Three mouse models were used in this study: VLDLR knockout mice (B6;129S7-Vldlr^{tm1Her}/J, The Jackson Laboratory, Bar Harbor, USA), C57BL/6 mice (C57BL/6, The Jackson Laboratory, Bar Harbor, USA), and SOD1 transgenic mice (strain details, The Jackson Laboratory, Bar Harbor, USA), with $n = \text{XX}$ mice per group. All imaging sessions were conducted under general anaesthesia using either isoflurane or a ketamine/xylazine combination. Isoflurane was induced at 4% in oxygen for 4 minutes and subsequently maintained at 2% in oxygen at a flow rate of 1.5–2 L/min. In cases where isoflurane alone did not provide adequate sedation, an intraperitoneal injection of ketamine/xylazine cocktail (100 mg/kg ketamine, 6 mg/kg xylazine; 10 mL/kg body weight) was administered. To maintain core body temperature of the mice throughout imaging, they were positioned on a heating pad. Mouse pupils were dilated with one drop of tropicamide (5 mg/mL, Agepha Pharma s.r.o., Senec, Slovakia) per eye, and artificial tear drops (Oculotect, ALCON Pharma GmbH, Freiburg im Breisgau, Germany) were applied at regular intervals to prevent the cornea from drying out.

Intralipid has been shown to be a highly scattering contrast agent that fills the vascular lumen uniformly, thereby compensating for the artefact caused by the diminished backscattering at vessel peripheries caused by RBC orientation effects [3,5,6]. For this study, Intralipid 20% (3 mL/kg

body weight) was administered as a bolus injection via the tail vein. Volumetric angiography data were acquired over a $1\text{ mm} \times 1\text{ mm}$ field of view centred on the optic nerve head (ONH), with a scan density of 500 A-scans per B-scan and five repeated B-scans at each of 400 slow-axis positions (acquisition time approximately 16 seconds). For this study, pre- and post-injection datasets and pre- and post-stimulation datasets were acquired. **These volumetric data were used solely for qualitative visualisation of the contrast enhancement effect across the retinal vascular plexuses and were not used for quantitative diameter analysis.** Additionally, a dynamic-contrast OCT (DyC-OCT) protocol [7] was employed during the contrast injection or during stimulation, consisting of 2000 repeated B-scans over approximately 16 seconds (interscan time 8.2 ms) at the same cross-sectional location over a 1 mm lateral field of view. DyC-OCT scans allow us to track the same vessels over time to precisely measure the effects of the contrast agent or the stimulation with a high degree of spatial coregistration. **All quantitative vessel diameter measurements reported in this study were derived from the DyC-OCT data.** All animal procedures were approved by the ethics committee of the Medical University of Vienna and the Austrian Federal Ministry of Education, Science, and Research (BMBWF/66.009/0272-V/3b/2019 and GZ 2024-0.802.524).

2.3. Post-processing and analysis

Cross-polarised OCT intensity data from the retinal pigment epithelium (RPE) were used for inter-frame alignment and B-scan flattening [3, 8]. Angiograms were derived by applying the complex subtraction OCT angiography (OCTA) algorithm [9, 10]. We evaluated multiple combinations of methods for quantifying vessel diameter from the OCTA data to determine which combinations of steps work best under different conditions. Specifically, we looked at two types of data projections (maximum intensity and mean intensity) to generate vessel profiles and several different quantifications of those profiles including a traditional binarisation, a Gaussian model approach, and a Generalised-Gaussian (GG) model approach. These methods represent commonly used methods in the literature for OCTA quantification [11–14]. The different methods were evaluated against the ground truth as described in this section. All data processing and analysis was performed in MATLAB (R2019b, MathWorks, Natick, MA, USA).

2.3.1. Ground truth calculation

Ground truth vessel diameters were obtained from contrast-enhanced DyC-OCT B-scan angiograms, where the uniformly scattering Intralipid fills the full vascular lumen regardless of RBC orientation. The width and the height of the vessel were manually measured from the vessel's cross-section. The ground truth diameter was defined as the minimum of the two measurements to account for off-axis cross-sectioning of the vessel, which produces a more elliptical appearance in the B-scan. For cases where the vessel was perpendicular to the B-scan, the height and width were in agreement. Because the lateral diameter is studied here, we defined a correction factor of *height/width* for cases where the width was larger than the height due to skew effects and was equal to 1 otherwise. By multiplying this correction factor against diameter measured from the ROI projection, we ensured that the measured vessel diameter reflected the true size of the vessel.

2.3.2. Vessel projection calculation

For each vessel of interest, a rectangular region of interest (ROI) encompassing the vessel cross-section, along the lateral (x) and axial (z) dimensions, was selected from the DyC-OCT B-scan angiograms. En face intensity profiles were then generated by projecting the A-scans within this ROI along the axial (z) direction yielding a time-stack of 1-D lateral intensity profiles for each vessel. Two projection methods were compared: maximum intensity projection (MIP), which selects the highest intensity value along the depth axis of each ROI, and mean intensity projection (MeIP), which averages the values along each ROI. Each projection resulted in a time-stack of

one-dimensional intensity profiles for each vessel, which were then used for subsequent diameter quantification. For the model-based approaches, the profiles were normalised to a range of 0–1 to ensure a good fit.

2.3.3. Model-based vessel diameter calculation

The two parametric models were fitted (Fig. 1a) to the one-dimensional intensity profiles from the previous step, using nonlinear least-squares regression in MATLAB.

Standard Gaussian function:

$$f(x) = A \exp\left(-\frac{(x - \mu)^2}{2\sigma^2}\right) + C \quad (1)$$

where A is the peak amplitude, μ is the centre position, σ is the standard deviation, and C is a constant baseline offset.

Generalised-Gaussian (GG) function:

$$f(x) = A \exp\left(-\left(\frac{|x - \mu|}{\alpha}\right)^\beta\right) + C \quad (2)$$

where A is the peak amplitude, μ is the centre position, α is the scale parameter, β is the shape parameter, and C is a constant baseline offset. Given the imaging system configuration, all vessels are expected to produce at minimum a Gaussian intensity profile in the B-scan cross-section, and so profiles sharper than Gaussian profile ($\beta < 2$) are therefore not technically meaningful. The shape parameter β was hence constrained to $\beta \geq 2$ during fitting. With this constraint, the GG accommodated to profiles ranging from Gaussian ($\beta = 2$, where $\sigma = \alpha/\sqrt{2}$) to increasingly flat-topped ($\beta > 2$).

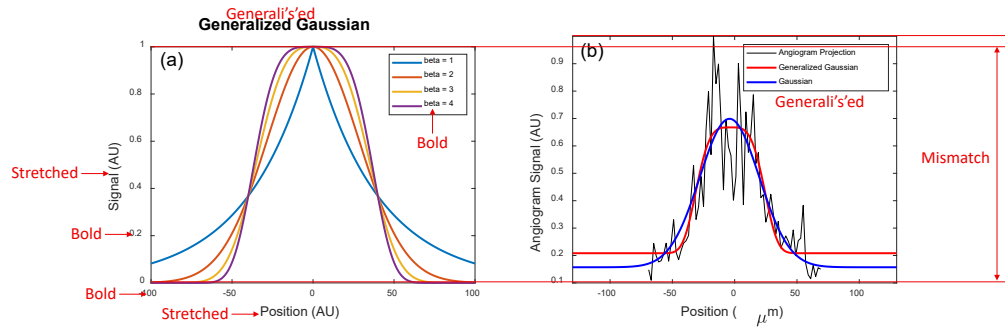


Fig. 1. (a) GG function for shape parameters $\beta = 1, 2, 3$, and 4 . At $\beta = 2$ the function reduces to a standard Gaussian; higher β values produce increasingly flat-topped profiles. (b) Example en face vessel intensity profile (black) with standard Gaussian (blue) and GG (red) fits.

Two standard width metrics were calculated from the fitted models: the full width at half maximum (FWHM) and the $1/e^2$ width. For the standard Gaussian fit, the $1/e^2$ width was calculated as:

$$w_{1/e^2, G} = 4\sigma \quad (3)$$

The FWHM for a Gaussian is related to the $1/e^2$ width by a fixed proportionality:

$$\text{FWHM}_G = 2\sigma\sqrt{2\ln 2} = \frac{\sqrt{2\ln 2}}{2} w_{1/e^2, G} \quad (4)$$

161 and therefore only the $1/e^2$ width was calculated directly from the fit, with the FWHM obtainable
 162 via this known relationship.

163 For the GG fit, no such linear relationship exists between the FWHM and $1/e^2$ width, since
 164 both depend on the shape parameter β . Both metrics were therefore calculated independently as:

$$\text{FWHM}_{\text{GG}} = 2\alpha(\ln 2)^{1/\beta} \quad (5)$$

$$w_{1/e^2, \text{GG}} = 2\alpha \cdot 2^{1/\beta} \quad (6)$$

166 2.3.4. Binary mask based vessel diameter calculation

167 For comparison with OCTA processing pipelines that rely on image binarisation, vessel diameters
 168 were also measured from binary masks generated by global thresholding. A 3D averaging filter
 169 with a kernel size of $50 \times 50 \times 10$ voxels (lateral $x \times$ axial $z \times$ temporal t) was applied to the
 170 DyC-OCT angiogram volumes to reduce noise. To get a binarised black and white (BW) mask,
 171 the maximum angiogram intensity within these smoothed volumes were calculated and five
 172 different threshold values were defined as fixed percentages of these maximum: **BW-1 = XX%**,
 173 **BW-2 = XX%**, **BW-3 = XX%**, **BW-4 = XX%**, and **BW-5 = XX%**. Each threshold was applied to
 174 the unsmoothed en face projection (MIP and MeIP) to generate a binary mask, and the vessel
 175 diameter was measured as the number of pixels above the threshold across the lateral vessel
 176 cross-section.

177 3. Results

178 3.1. Qualitative assessment of vessel underestimation

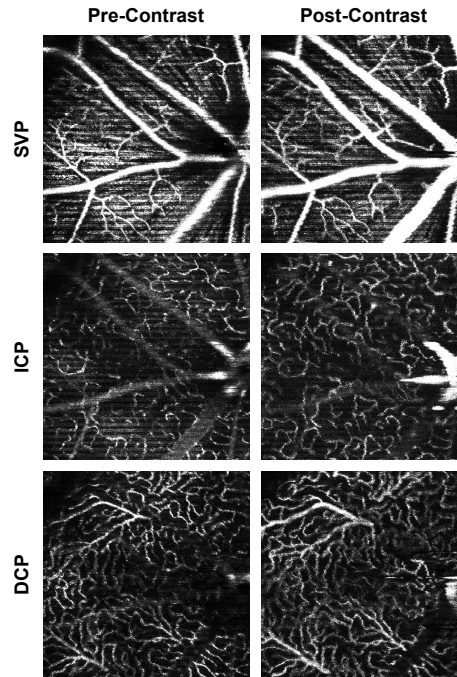


Fig. 2. OCTA MIP en face of the SVP, ICP, and DCP before (left) and after (right) the administration of Intralipid 20%. Vessels appear visibly wider and brighter post-contrast across all layers, most prominently in the larger vessels.

Figure 2 shows OCTA MIP en face of the superficial vascular plexus (SVP), intermediate capillary plexus (ICP), and deep capillary plexus (DCP) before and after contrast injection. Across all three layers, vessels appeared visibly wider and brighter post-contrast injection, consistent with previous literature showing that OCTA underestimates vessel diameter in the absence of a contrast agent [3]. This effect was most pronounced in the larger vessels, especially in the SVP, where the major retinal arteries and veins appeared noticeably thicker after contrast administration. In the ICP and DCP, the capillary networks also showed improved visibility, though the effect was less dramatic.

DyC OCTA projections helped visualise the temporal changes in vessel diameter pre- and post-contrast injection (Fig. 3). Pre-contrast injection, the vessel cross-sections appeared narrower than their true diameter (Fig. 3a), which could be due to lateral edge signal suppression by the RBC orientation artefact [15]. At peak contrast, the Intralipid filled the vascular lumen uniformly and showed the full extent of the vessel cross-section (Fig. 3b). However, the high scattering nature of the contrast agent produced light diffusion beyond the vessel wall, resulting in an apparent vessel diameter that slightly exceeded the true anatomical diameter. In the post-contrast phase, the signal stabilised as the initial bolus cleared, and the vessel boundaries remained more visible than before injection without the overestimation observed at peak contrast (Fig. 3c). The MIP and the corresponding binary mask over time (Figs. 3d–e) showed the observed temporal changes in vessel diameter across the three phases. The mean OCTA intensity (Fig. 3f) showed a sharp increase post-contrast injection, followed by a decrease to a new steady state that remained elevated above the pre-contrast baseline. These observations confirm that the contrast agent does significantly enhance vessel visibility and diameter, and that the post-contrast images show improved vessel delineation compared to pre-contrast.

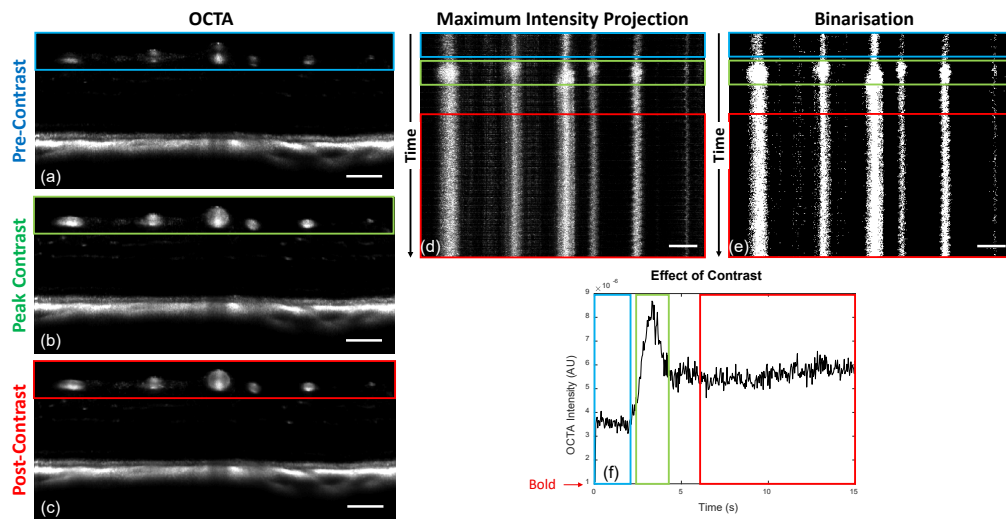


Fig. 3. DyC-OCT B-scan angiograms at (a) pre-contrast, (b) peak contrast, and (c) post-contrast timepoints. (d) MIP and (e) binarisation of the vessel cross-sections over time, with coloured boxes indicating the pre-contrast (blue), peak-contrast (green), and post-contrast (red) windows. (f) Mean OCTA intensity over time, showing the temporal intensity dynamics. All scale bars are 100 μm .

3.2. Accuracy and linearity of diameter measurements

To evaluate the accuracy and linearity of all diameter measurement approaches, the calculated diameter values were plotted against the ground truth for each vessel across three conditions:

205 pre-contrast, peak contrast, and post-contrast. A linear regression was fitted to each condition,
 206 yielding the slope (m) and coefficient of determination (R^2), which are summarised in Table 1. A
 207 slope of $m = 1$ (black line) indicated perfect agreement with the ground truth, and R^2 quantified
 208 the goodness of fit of the linear model. For the model-based methods, six combinations were
 209 evaluated: two projection methods (MIP and MeIP) by three width metrics ($w_{1/e^2, G}$, $FWHM_{GG}$,
 210 and $w_{1/e^2, GG}$; Fig. 4). For the binarisation-based methods, diameter was measured at five
 211 threshold levels (BW-1 through BW-5) for both MIP (Fig. 5) and MeIP (Fig. 6).

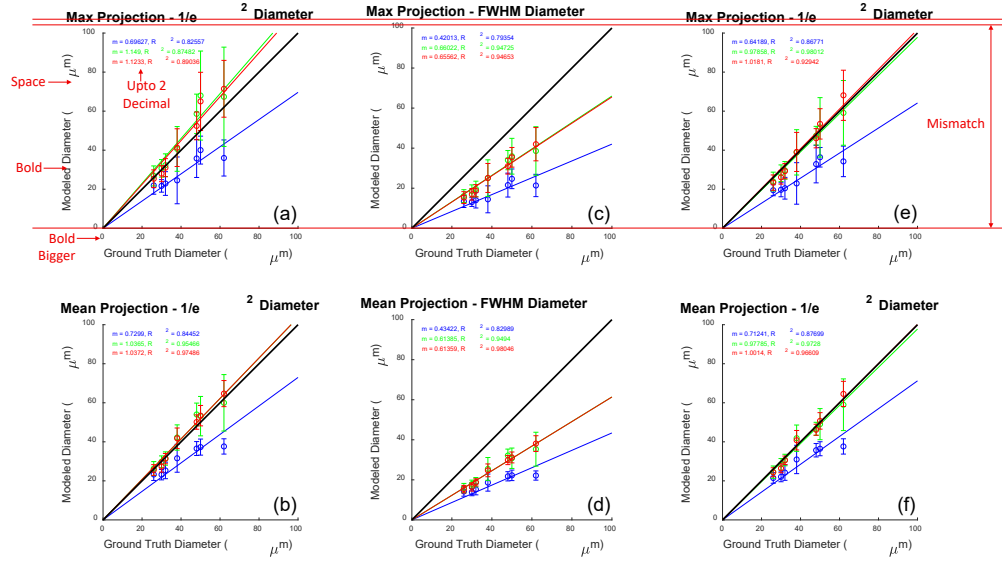


Fig. 4. Modelled versus ground truth vessel diameter using MIP (top row) and MeIP (bottom row). Columns correspond to (a,b) Gaussian $1/e^2$ width, (c,d) GG FWHM, and (e,f) GG $1/e^2$ width. Regression lines and statistics are shown for pre-contrast (blue), peak contrast (green), and post-contrast (red) conditions. The black line indicates the identity line ($m = 1$).

212 All model-based methods underestimated vessel diameter in pre-contrast data, with slopes
 213 ranging from 0.42 to 0.73 (Table 1). Contrast enhancement improved accuracy across all metrics,
 214 though the degree of improvement varied. The $FWHM_{GG}$ metric remained well below unity
 215 even post-contrast. The $w_{1/e^2, G}$ with MIP slightly overestimated post-contrast ($m = 1.12$ – 1.15),
 216 while MeIP yielded values closer to unity ($m = 1.04$). The $w_{1/e^2, GG}$ with MeIP provided the best
 217 overall agreement, achieving a slope closest to unity with $m = 1.001$ ($R^2 = 0.97$) post-contrast,
 218 which was the closest to the identity line of all tested model-based methods. Across all metrics,
 219 MeIP mostly outperformed MIP in both accuracy and linearity (Table 1, Fig. 4).

220 For binarisation-based methods, the slope decreased with increase in threshold values across
 221 all contrast conditions and projections (Table 1). MeIP m values were consistently higher
 222 than MIP across all threshold and contrast conditions. Also, across all contrast conditions, m
 223 dropped more significantly with increase in threshold for MIP than for MeIP. For MIP, the pre-
 224 and post-contrast R^2 decreased substantially with increase in threshold, whereas for MeIP, the
 225 R^2 remained relatively stable. At lower threshold values and at peak and post-contrast, MeIP
 226 overestimated the vessel diameter more than MIP. At peak and post-contrast, MeIP BW-3 achieved
 227 a slope of $m = 0.99$ and $m = 0.97$ respectively, though with a lower $R^2 = 0.86$ and $R^2 = 0.80$
 228 respectively, compared to $w_{1/e^2, GG}$ which achieved $m = 1.001$ with a higher $R^2 = 0.97$. Overall,
 229 MeIP provided more reliable binarisation-based diameter measurements than MIP.

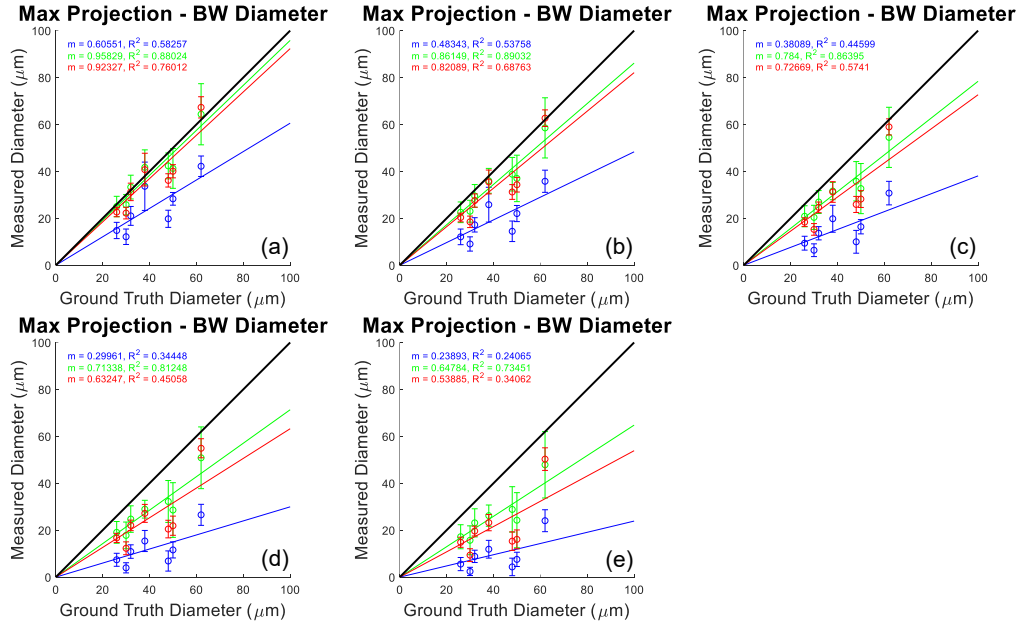


Fig. 5. Vessel diameter measured from BW images versus ground truth for MIP at five threshold levels: (a) BW-1 through (e) BW-5. Regression lines and statistics are shown for pre-contrast (blue), peak contrast (green), and post-contrast (red). Both slope m and R^2 decrease with increasing threshold values.

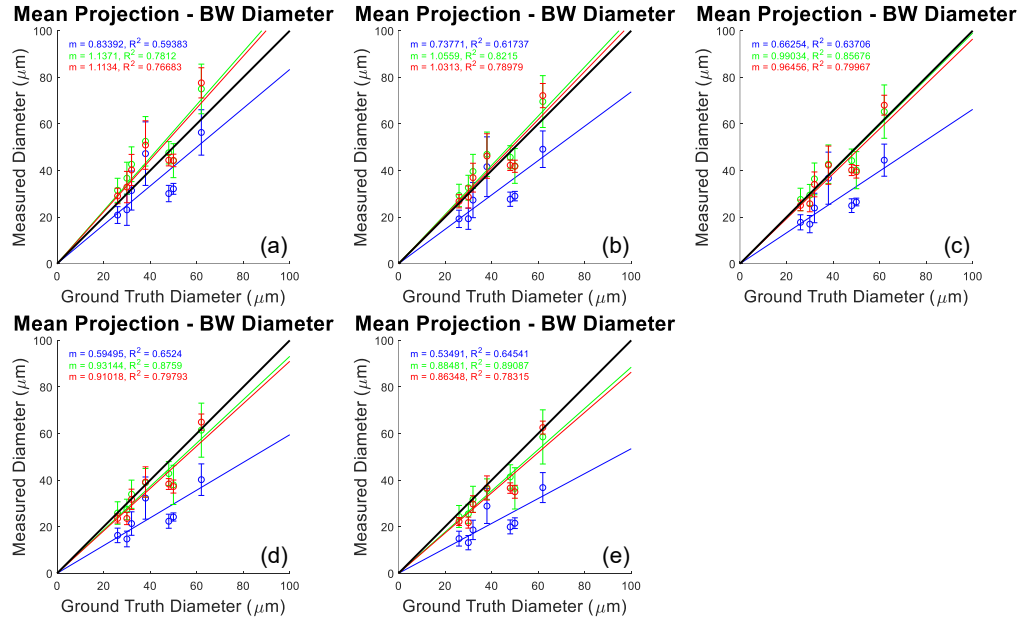


Fig. 6. Vessel diameter measured from BW images versus ground truth for MeIP at five threshold levels: (a) BW-1 through (e) BW-5. Regression lines and statistics are shown for pre-contrast (blue), peak contrast (green), and post-contrast (red) conditions. MeIP yielded higher slopes and more stable R^2 values compared to MIP (Fig. 5).

Table 1. Summary of slope (m) and coefficient of determination (R^2) for all diameter measurement methods across pre-contrast, peak contrast, and post-contrast conditions. Methods are grouped as binarisation-based and model-based. Bold slope values indicate agreement within 10% of unity ($0.9 \leq m \leq 1.1$).

	BW-1		BW-2		BW-3		BW-4		BW-5		$w_{1/e^2, G}$		FWHM _{GG}		$w_{1/e^2, GG}$	
	MIP	MeIP	MIP	MeIP	MIP	MeIP	MIP	MeIP	MIP	MeIP	MIP	MeIP	MIP	MeIP	MIP	MeIP
<i>Slope (m)</i>																
Pre	0.61	0.83	0.48	0.74	0.38	0.66	0.30	0.59	0.24	0.53	0.70	0.73	0.42	0.43	0.64	0.71
Peak	0.96	1.14	0.86	1.06	0.78	0.99	0.71	0.93	0.65	0.88	1.15	1.04	0.66	0.61	0.98	0.98
Post	0.92	1.11	0.82	1.03	0.73	0.97	0.63	0.91	0.54	0.86	1.12	1.04	0.66	0.61	1.02	1.00
<i>Coefficient of determination (R^2)</i>																
Pre	0.58	0.59	0.54	0.62	0.45	0.64	0.34	0.65	0.24	0.65	0.83	0.84	0.79	0.83	0.87	0.88
Peak	0.88	0.78	0.89	0.82	0.86	0.86	0.81	0.88	0.74	0.89	0.87	0.95	0.95	0.95	0.98	0.97
Post	0.76	0.77	0.69	0.79	0.57	0.80	0.45	0.80	0.34	0.78	0.89	0.97	0.95	0.98	0.93	0.97

3.3. Repeatability and linearity comparison across all methods

(confirm the values reported here with the actual data, as these are just extracted from the bar plots.)

To compare the repeatability and linearity across BW1–5 and the model based approach, the coefficient of variation (CoV) and R^2 were computed (Fig. 7). For MIP based measurements (Fig. 7a), the CoV of BW method increased with increase in threshold while the CoV of the model based methods remained relatively stable. With increase in threshold values BW1–5, the CoV increased from approximately 0.2 to 0.47 for pre-contrast, 0.17 to 0.32 for peak contrast, and 0.1 to 0.18 for post-contrast data. The model based methods ($G-e^2$, GG-HM, GG- e^2) exhibited CoV values of approximately 0.24–0.27 for pre-contrast data, with reduced values of approximately 0.16–0.18 post-contrast. For MeIP based measurements (Fig. 7b), the BW CoV values were lower and more stable across thresholds, with values observed as approximately 0.18–0.20 pre-contrast, 0.16–0.17 peak contrast, and 0.09–0.13 post-contrast. The model based CoV values were lower as well, with values observed as approximately 0.13–0.15 pre-contrast, increasing slightly to 0.13–0.16, and then decreasing to approximately 0.09–0.10 post-contrast.

The linearity results followed a complementary pattern. For MIP (Fig. 7c), the BW R^2 values declined sharply from approximately 0.59 at BW-1 to 0.23 at BW-5 for pre-contrast data, while the model based R^2 values ranged from 0.80 to 0.86 pre-contrast and reached 0.90–0.97 at peak and post-contrast. For MeIP (Fig. 7d), the BW R^2 values were more stable (approximately 0.60–0.65 pre-contrast) but still substantially lower than the model based values (0.83–0.85 pre-contrast, reaching 0.95–0.98 post-contrast). Taken together, these results demonstrate that model based methods consistently outperformed binarisation in both repeatability and linearity across all contrast conditions, and that MeIP based processing yielded superior performance compared with MIP for both method categories.

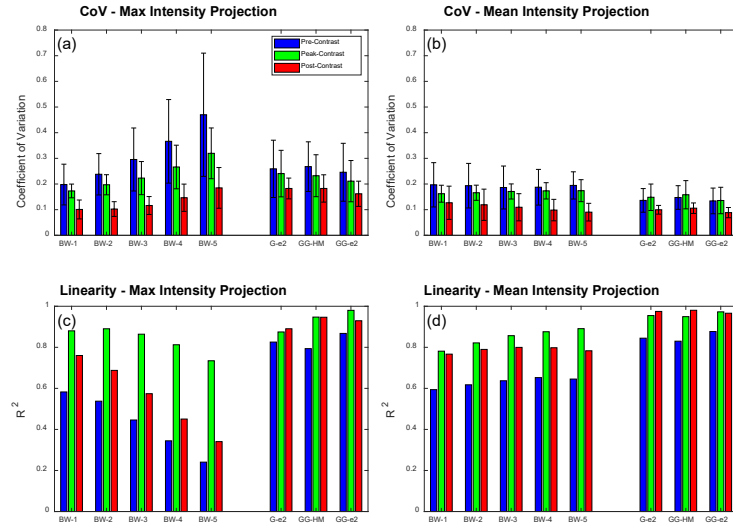


Fig. 7. Summary of repeatability and linearity across all diameter measurement methods. (a,b) Coefficient of variation (CoV) for MIP and MeIP, respectively. (c,d) Coefficient of determination (R^2) for MIP and MeIP, respectively. Bars are grouped by method (BW-1 through BW-5, $G-e^2$, GG-HM, $GG-e^2$) and colour-coded by contrast condition: pre-contrast (blue), peak-contrast (green), and post-contrast (red). Model based methods consistently show lower CoV and higher R^2 than binarisation based methods.

3.4. Functional flicker stimulation

To investigate whether the choice of diameter measurement method affects the detection of physiological vascular responses, functional flicker stimulation was performed in a C57BL/6 mouse and vessel diameter was measured before and after photoreceptor stimulation using each of the three approaches (Fig. 8).

The Gaussian and GG model-based time series (Figs. 8a,b) showed visible diameter increases following stimulation onset for most of the five vessels examined, consistent with the expected neurovascular coupling-driven vasodilation. The binarised angiogram time series (Fig. 8c), however, showed the opposite trend: a paradoxical decrease in measured diameter following stimulation. Bar charts summarising the mean pre- and post-stimulation diameters per vessel (Figs. 8d-f) confirmed this pattern. For the Gaussian model, four of five vessels showed significant diameter increases ($p < 0.01$), with percentage changes of +9.2%, +9.6%, +28.5%, and +4.9% for vessels 1, 2, 4, and 5, respectively (Fig. 2). The GG model similarly detected significant increases in three of five vessels (+9.9%, +28.4%, and +3.1% for vessels 2, 4, and 5). In marked contrast, the binarised method detected significant diameter *decreases* in four of five vessels (−12.5%, −10.2%, −4.2%, and −9.3% for vessels 1, 2, 3, and 5).

Fig. 8. Functional flicker stimulation results. (a–c) Time-series of vessel diameter during baseline and post-stimulation periods for (a) Gaussian model, (b) generalised Gaussian model, and (c) binarised angiogram, across five vessels. Dashed lines indicate stimulation onset and offset. (d–f) Mean diameter per vessel before (dark bars) and after (light bars) stimulation for each method; veins are shown in blue/cyan and arteries in dark/light red. Significance levels: ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$. (g) Angiogram signal intensity time series and (h) mean intensity per vessel before and after stimulation. Model-based methods detect the expected vasodilation, whereas the binarised method paradoxically reports vasoconstriction.

The explanation for this paradoxical binarisation result lies in the concomitant change in angiogram signal intensity. Following stimulation, the angiogram intensity decreased significantly for all five vessels ($p < 0.0005$), with reductions ranging from -14.1% to -19.9% (Figs. 8g,h; Fig. 2). Because the binarised diameter is derived from the number of pixels exceeding a fixed threshold, a reduction in signal intensity directly translates to fewer above-threshold pixels and hence a smaller apparent diameter, even if the true vessel diameter has increased.

To quantify this confounding, the correlation between diameter change and angiogram intensity change was computed for each method (Table 2). For the binarised method, the per-vessel correlations were uniformly positive and strong ($\rho = 0.59, 0.80, 0.27, 0.46, 0.52$ for vessels 1–5), yielding an overall correlation of $\rho = 0.523$ ($p < 0.0005$). This indicates that the binarised diameter measurement is substantially confounded by the angiogram signal intensity. In contrast, the Gaussian model yielded an overall correlation of $\rho = -0.101$ and the GG model yielded $\rho = -0.098$, confirming that the model-based diameter measurements are effectively independent of angiogram signal intensity fluctuations. These results demonstrate that model-based fitting not only provides more accurate and repeatable diameter measurements, but also recovers physiologically meaningful vascular responses that binarisation-based methods can misrepresent.

Table 2. Summary of flicker stimulation results. Top: percentage diameter change per vessel for each method together with corresponding p -values. Bottom: Pearson correlation (ρ) between measured diameter and angiogram signal intensity for each method and vessel. Overall correlations: Gaussian = -0.101 , GG = -0.098 , BW = 0.523 .

Change in Diameter	Vessel 1		Vessel 2		Vessel 3		Vessel 4		Vessel 5	
Gaussian (% Change)	9.2	$p < 0.0005$	9.6	$p = 0.0019$	1.5	$p = 0.59$	28.5	$p < 0.0005$	4.9	$p = 0.0008$
Gen. Gaussian (% Change)	1.5	$p = 0.28$	9.9	$p < 0.0005$	-0.6	$p = 0.79$	28.4	$p < 0.0005$	3.1	$p = 0.0034$
Binarised (% Change)	-12.5	$p < 0.0005$	-10.2	$p < 0.0005$	-4.2	$p = 0.0011$	1.0	$p = 0.404$	-9.3	$p < 0.0005$
Angiogram Intensity (% Change)	-14.1	$p < 0.0005$	-18.2	$p < 0.0005$	-14.3	$p < 0.0005$	-19.9	$p < 0.0005$	-16.3	$p < 0.0005$
Correlation to Intensity	Vessel 1		Vessel 2		Vessel 3		Vessel 4		Vessel 5	
Gaussian Diameter Corr.	-0.07	$p = 0.48$	0.23	$p = 0.019$	-0.28	$p = 0.0044$	-0.15	$p = 0.14$	-0.24	$p = 0.018$
Gen. Gaussian Diameter Corr.	0.03	$p = 0.79$	0.07	$p = 0.47$	-0.28	$p = 0.0056$	-0.14	$p = 0.16$	-0.18	$p = 0.081$
Binarised Diameter Corr.	0.59	$p < 0.0005$	0.80	$p < 0.0005$	0.27	$p = 0.0077$	0.46	$p < 0.0005$	0.52	$p < 0.0005$

4. Discussion

4.1. Maximum Intensity or Mean Intensity?

4.2. Future Directions

A future direction of this work is to move toward fully automated segmentation and calculation of vessel diameters from enface angiogram maps. While ROIs were manually selected in this work, it is also possible to automatically segment angiographic data using traditional skeletonization

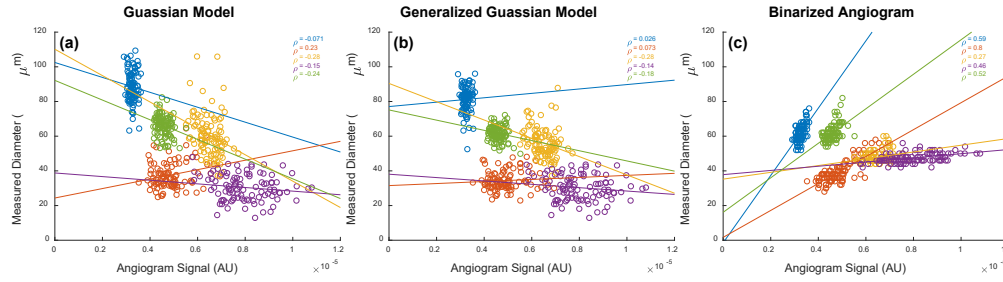


Fig. 9. Measured vessel diameter as a function of angiogram signal intensity during functional flicker stimulation for (a) Gaussian model, (b) generalised Gaussian model, and (c) binarised angiogram. Each colour represents one of five vessels; ρ denotes the Pearson correlation coefficient. The binarised method shows strong positive correlations between diameter and signal intensity, indicating confounding, whereas model-based methods show weak or no correlation.

292 methods, which are commonly used for automated OCTA analysis. From a skeletonized image,
 293 vessel angle can be computed for further extraction of vascular cross-sections perpendicular to
 294 the vessel axis. These cross-sections could then be processed using the model-based methods
 295 described here to enable fully automated analysis of 3D OCTA data sets, rather than the semi-
 296 automated approach shown here for 2D OCTA data. This type of model-based approach is
 297 particularly important for comparing 3D volumes acquired at different time points in the mouse
 298 eye as there are often intensity losses caused by drying of the eye, cataract formation, etc. As we
 299 have shown in this work, even low levels of intensity loss occurring over a short time window
 300 can significantly impact the measured vessel diameter when using a binarization approach, but
 301 not when using the models presented here.

302 4.3. Computation Time

303 It is clear from the results that model-based approaches outperform traditional diameter measure-
 304 ments based on a binarized image. Nevertheless, the improved linearity and repeatability come
 305 at the cost of computation time. Fitting a model to the raw angiogram data is significantly more
 306 computationally expensive and may not always be the most appropriate choice if results of the
 307 processing are time sensitive. Nevertheless, these approaches are highly parallelizable given
 308 the independent nature of the measurements, so it is expected that computation time could be
 309 significantly accelerated with appropriate hardware.

310 4.4. Thresholding

311 The results presented here used a basic, global threshold for the binarization of the angiogram
 312 data. There are numerous other approaches for binarizing the angiogram, which will most likely
 313 each behave differently. For example, angiogram signals can be enhanced with vesselness filters
 314 and dynamic thresholds can be used to binarize images with varying SNR. When applying a
 315 vesselness filter, it is possible to enhance the shape of the angiogram and omit noise, but it is
 316 also possible for such enhancement to overcompensate the signal, leading to larger than expected
 317 vessel appearance. Dynamic thresholding can also yield a more uniform angiogram appearance,
 318 but similarly risks over- or undercompensating vessels given that threshold level directly affects
 319 the measured diameter. Further analysis of these other methods would be required to determine
 320 their efficacy in returning accurate and precise diameter values.

321 **4.5. Literature Comparison**

322 Discuss the paper [12]: ‘Maximum value projection produces better enface OCT angiograms
323 than mean value projection’.

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